
■ **Cecil H. Brown**

NORTHERN ILLINOIS UNIVERSITY

British Names for American Birds

Eighty-seven English names for British birds are used to denote birds native to central and eastern North America. Analysis reveals that English names for British birds are typically applied to those American birds, among all American birds, that are closest to the British birds in scientific (Linnaean) classification. This naming strategy accords with the finding of a similarity judgment experiment in which 34 subjects match realistic pictures of British and American birds for perceptual resemblance. The results of the experiment indicate that folk observers tend to judge those American birds, among all American birds, to be most similar to British birds that have the same name as the latter. In addition, the experiment suggests that folk perception of biological similarity is a better predictor of the detailed nature of folk biological classification than is scientific taxonomy.

With the arrival of the quincentennial of the beginning of sustained contact between the Old and New Worlds, it is appropriate to focus anthropological attention on how contact influenced language, not only languages of Native Americans (e.g., Casagrande 1954a, 1954b, 1955; Voegelin and Hymes 1953), but also those of European settlers and their descendants. Here, I address the latter by investigating how English vocabulary has nomenclaturally accommodated native birds of central and eastern North America.

Several studies outline etymologies of English names for North American birds (e.g., Choate 1973; Gruson 1972). These attest to three ways North American birds have acquired English names: (1) English names for British birds have been applied to North American birds, (2) names for American birds have been coined by Anglo-Americans, and (3) names for American birds have been borrowed by Anglo-Americans (occasionally from Native Americans, but from others as well).

This article deals only with names of category (1), which I call "British names for American birds." Data compiled here from field guides pre-

pared by professional ornithologists show that the labeling of American birds through application of British bird names is for the most part closely in accord with scientific (Linnaean) classification. In addition, I have undertaken a similarity judgment experiment, which shows that the naming of American birds is for the most part isomorphic with judgments concerning the similarity of British and American birds made by subjects lacking specialist knowledge of birds (i.e., folk observers). Specifically, the experiment indicates that folk observers tend to judge British birds, whose names have become applied to certain American birds, as being perceptually more similar to the latter than they are to any other birds that occur natively in central and eastern North America.

Background

In a recent paper, Berlin (1990) outlines positions of proponents of two contemporary camps of thought regarding the nature of folk biological classification. He calls these camps (with due credit to Terrence Hays and Darrell Posey) the utilitarianists and the intellectualists. Proponents of utilitarianism (e.g., Hunn 1982) argue that folk classification of plants and animals is a means for human beings to adjust to their environments by classifying and assigning names just to those species that have important, practical consequences for human existence. In contrast, proponents of intellectualism (e.g., Atran 1990) propose that biological organisms are categorized and named by folk independent of the practical values and uses species may possess for them. In the intellectualist view, ethnobiological knowledge is fundamentally cognitively motivated, entailing judgments of relative degrees of similarity and differences among species.

Berlin is a member of the intellectualist camp. In his paper (1990), he assembles evidence from two Jivaroan groups (Peru) showing that folk naming of vertebrate animals in their habitats can be predicted on the basis of how these animals are treated in scientific classification. He notes that Western scientific taxonomy is not based on knowledge of the cultural importance of these animals, but rather solely on similarities and differences among species. He concludes that since Jivaroan ethnobiological classifications accord closely with scientific taxonomy, these systems similarly are not informed by utilitarian considerations. Rather, they are products of intellectualism.

Data compiled in this article clearly show that the application of names for British birds to American species similarly accords with scientific classification and, hence, with the intellectualist model. This is, perhaps, not surprising, since the birds in question are not particularly utilitarian other than serving as intellectual curiosities and objects of observation. Of particular interest in this treatment, however, are instances in which British to American naming transfers are *not* in accord with scientific taxonomy. The results of the similarity judgment experiment reported below show that such departures from expectations are nonetheless in accord with folk judgments of species similarity. Thus, although scientific

classification is shown to be a good predictor of the nature of folk systems of biological classification, folk judgments of species similarity (which usually, but not always, accord with scientific classification) may constitute the better prognosticator of folk biosystematics.

English Names for Birds

I have consulted two widely used field guides to birds to establish a preliminary list of British names applied to American birds: *The Hamlyn Guide to Birds of Britain and Europe* (Bruun et al. 1986) and *A Field Guide to the Birds of Eastern and Central North America* (Peterson 1980), henceforth referred to as the *Peterson Guide*. Names used in the two field guides accord with those given in checklists developed by professional ornithologists for the purpose of standardizing scientific and English nomenclature for birds. For example, names given in the *Peterson Guide* are essentially the same as those adopted in the *Check-List of North American Birds* (e.g., 1957) prepared by the American Ornithologists' Union (AOU).

English names for birds found in field guides are not the same as English folk names for birds (cf. Parkes 1975:819). Folk names are those linguistic labels that are known to, and used by, most members of a community who speak the same language or dialect. Folk names for birds tend to vary from one dialect area to another. For example, in some areas of Britain, *Erithacus rebecula* is called redbreast, in others, robin redbreast, and in yet others, ruddock (Jackson 1968:66). However, the name for this species given in the *Hamlyn Guide* is robin, the designation adopted for it by the *Checklist of the Birds of Great Britain and Ireland* (1952). Since bird names of field guides are primarily known to and used by specialists, such as professional ornithologists and bird-watchers, they are not folk names. There are, however, reasons for inferring that field guide names are reasonably reflective of folk usage.¹

English names for birds in field guides are of two kinds, monomial and complex. An example of a monomial name is jay, which denotes *Garrulus glandarius* in Britain. An example of a complex label is blue jay, which designates *Cyanocitta cristata* in America. Complex names consist of a base constituent (e.g., jay) and a modifier of some sort (e.g., blue).² This study is concerned only with monomial names and base names.³

Some species listed in the *Peterson Guide* are assigned more than one common name. For example, both whimbrel and Hudsonian curlew are listed by Peterson as *Numenius phaeopus*. In all instances of such dual names, one of the names is given in parentheses to indicate that it was used in earlier editions of the *Peterson Guide* (in this example, Hudsonian curlew is parenthesized). Nonparenthesized names reflect changes made in updated versions of checklists. In this study, I ignore these new names and use only the older ones, because these are probably more reflective of American folk usage.⁴

List of British Names for American Birds

All English bird names (monomials and base names) found in the Peterson and Hamlyn guides were included on a preliminary list of British

names for American birds. This list was subsequently shortened by eliminating names that designate birds not native to, or not regular visitors to or through, Britain and/or America (here and henceforth "America(n)" is used as shorthand for eastern and central North America). Thus, names for vagrants and accidentals are not included on the revised list. In addition, names for introduced and escaped species were removed. These eliminations help ensure that all names on the list originally designated only native British birds and were subsequently applied to native American birds.⁵

The final list of 87 British monomial and base names for American birds is presented in Table 1 in alphabetical order. In two instances, British and American names are not identical, but, nonetheless, are treated as such in Table 1 because they are historically related: American brant is a phonological corruption of British brent, and British tit is a truncated version of the original titmouse, the nontruncated label having been retained in America.

Patterns in the Application of British Names to American Birds

The following four patterns are observed in the application of British names to American birds:

- A. A British monomial or base name for British species X is used to label the same species occurring natively in America.
- B. A British monomial or base name for British species X is used to label species Y occurring natively in America when (1) species X does not occur natively in America, and (2) species X and Y are of the same genus.
- C. A British monomial or base name for British species X is used to label species Y occurring natively in America when (1) species X does not occur natively in America, (2) the genus to which species X belongs does not occur natively in America, and (3) species X and Y are of the same family.
- D. A British monomial or base name for British species X is used to label species Y occurring natively in America when (1) species X does not occur natively in America, (2) the genus to which species X belongs does not occur natively in America, (3) the family to which species X belongs does not occur natively in America, and (4) species X and Y are of the same order.

Of the 87 names listed in Table 1, only seven entail applications that do not conform with any of the four patterns listed above. In Table 1, the pattern pertaining to each of the 80 names that do so conform is indicated parenthetically (e.g., mallard followed by (A) indicates that pattern A pertains to the application of this British name to an American bird). The seven exceptions to these patterns are also noted parenthetically. Table 2 reports the frequency of the applicational patterns and exceptions to patterns noted in Table 1.

Table 1

British monomial and base names for American birds, with indication of pertinent applicational pattern^a and referential expansion if pertinent^b

avocet (B)	owl (A)
bittern (B)	phalarope (A, expanded)
blackbird (exceptional)	pigeon (A, expanded)
brant/brent (A)	pintail (A)
bunting (A, expanded)	pipit (A, expanded)
coot (B)	plover (A, expanded)
cormorant (A, expanded)	ptarmigan (A, expanded)
crane (B)	puffin (A)
creeper (A)	rail (B)
crossbill (A, expanded)	raven (A, expanded)
crow (B)	razorbill (A)
cuckoo (C)	redpoll (A, expanded)
curlew (B)	redstart (exceptional)
dove (B)	robin (C)
duck (B)	ruff (reeve) (A)
eagle (A, expanded)	sanderling (A)
eider (A, expanded)	sandpiper (A, expanded)
flycatcher (D)	scaup (A, expanded)
fulmar (A)	scoter (A, expanded)
gadwall (A)	shearwater (A, expanded)
gannet (A)	shoveler (A)
godwit (B)	shrike (A, expanded)
goldeneye (A)	siskin (B)
goldfinch (B)	skua (A, expanded)
goose (A, expanded)	snipe (A)
goshawk (A)	sparrow (D)
grebe (A, expanded)	sparrowhawk ^c (exceptional)
grouse (exceptional)	spoonbill (C)
guillemot (A)	storm petrel (A, expanded)
gull (A, expanded)	swallow (A, expanded)
heron (B)	swan (A, expanded)
jay (C)	swift (C)
kingfisher (C)	teal (A, expanded)
kite (C)	tern (A, expanded)
kittiwake (A)	thrush (exceptional)
knot (A)	titmouse/tit (B)
lark (C)	turnstone (A)
magpie (A)	warbler (exceptional)
mallard (A)	waxwing (A, expanded)
martin (exceptional)	wheatear (A)
merganser (A, expanded)	woodcock (C)
nuthatch (B)	woodpecker (C)
oriole (D)	wren (A, expanded)
osprey (A)	

^aPatterns A, B, C, and D are described in the text.

^bReferential expansion is denoted in this table by use of the term "expanded." See text for an explanation.

^cThis is the British spelling; the American rendition is *sparrow hawk*.

Table 2
Frequency of applicational patterns and exceptions reported in Table 1*

	Number British Bird Names	%
Applicational Pattern A	52	59.8
Applicational Pattern B	15	17.2
Applicational Pattern C	10	11.5
Applicational Pattern D	3	3.5
Exceptions to Patterns	7	8.1
Total:	87	

*Aggregated frequencies do not equal 100% due to rounding.

Pattern A Example. An example of Pattern A is swallow, a monomial for *Hirundo rustica* in Britain, which occurs as a base name in the complex construction barn swallow for the same species in America.

Pattern B Example. An example of this pattern is coot, a monomial for *Fulica atra* in Britain, which occurs as a base name in the American construction American coot. The latter complex label denotes a species of the genus *Fulica* that does not occur in Britain. *Fulica atra* does not occur in America.

Pattern C Example. An example of this pattern is cuckoo, which occurs as a monomial for *Cuculus canorus* in Britain. The term is found as a base element in three American complex labels, yellow-billed cuckoo, black-billed cuckoo, and mangrove cuckoo, which label species of the genus *Coccyzus*. Birds of the genera *Cuculus* and *Coccyzus* belong to the same family (i.e., Cuculidae). Members of the genus *Cuculus* are not native to America.

Pattern D Example. An example of this pattern is flycatcher, which in Britain is a constituent of the construction spotted flycatcher for *Muscicapula striata* and of the label pied flycatcher for *Ficedula hypoleuca*. In America, the name is found in complex terms for a number of different birds, for example, scissor-tailed flycatcher (*Muscivora forficata*), great crested flycatcher (*Myiarchus crinitus*), olive-sided flycatcher (*Nuttallornis borealis*), vermilion flycatcher (*Pyrocephalus rubinus*). The British flycatchers belong to the family Muscicapidae, whereas the American flycatchers belong to the family Tyrannidae. Both families pertain to the order Passeriformes. Exemplars of Muscicapidae do not occur in America.

The seven exceptions to the observed patterns involve American usage of the following British bird names: (1) thrush, (2) grouse, (3) martin, (4) blackbird, (5) sparrowhawk, (6) redstart, and (7) warbler.⁶

In a number of instances, a British term for a British species is used to denote the same species that occurs natively in America. For example, the British monomial waxwing, designating *Bombicilla garrulus*, occurs in the American construction bohemian waxwing, designating the same species. In some cases in America, such terms are also used in complex labels for additional species, for example, cedar waxwing denotes the na-

tive American species *Bombycilla cedrorum*. British bird names that have been so extended in application in America are flagged in Table 1.

Analysis

Data outlined above indicate that application of British bird names to American species closely accords with scientific taxonomy. The four patterns described suggest that a British bird name has typically been applied to an American species that is taxonomically closest to the species it designates in Britain. Thus, Pattern A suggests that a monomial or base name for species X in Britain typically has been applied to the same species in America rather than to any other American species. Pattern B suggests that when species X is not found in America, the British term designating it has been applied to American species of the same genus as species X rather than to any other American species (e.g., of a different genus of the same family). Pattern C suggests that when species X is not found in America, and when exemplars of the same genus also do not occur, the British term designating it has been applied to American species of the same family as species X rather than to any other American species (e.g., of a different family of the same order). Pattern D suggests that when species X is not found in America, and when exemplars of the same genus and of the same family also do not occur there, the British term denoting species X has been applied to American species of the same order as species X rather than to any other American species (e.g., of a different order).

The several exceptions to the naming patterns indicate that application of British bird labels to American species does not always closely accord with scientific classification. Thus, for example, thrush, which in Britain designates in complex labels two species of *Turdus* (family Turdidae), does not also denote the only species of that genus (i.e., *Turdus migratorius*) found in eastern and central North America. Rather, thrush in America is used in complex labels for genera of the family Turdidae other than *Turdus*.

A possible explanation of the thrush exception is that the British and American birds sharing the label are perceived by folk (nonspecialist) observers as more closely resembling one another (at least superficially) than are the British species of *Turdus* and the American species *Turdus migratorius*. Thus, occasionally a species X of a certain scientific rank (e.g., genus, family, or order) may more closely resemble perceptually (at least superficially) a species Y of a different scientific rank than it does a species Z of its own scientific rank.

It is possible to test this proposal. I have done so by designing and implementing an experiment in which human subjects, presented with realistic pictures of both British and American birds, make similarity judgments. The major goal of the experiment was to determine whether or not subjects tend to judge British birds, whose names are applied to certain American birds, as being more similar perceptually to the American birds than they are to any other birds that occur natively in central and eastern North America.

Experiment

Subjects

Thirty-four people ranging in age from 17 to 75 (median = 30, mean = 33.7) participated on a voluntary basis. Nine subjects were interviewed in England, and the remaining participants were interviewed in the United States. Sixteen subjects were female, and 18 male. All had normal or corrected-to-normal vision.

Stimulus Materials

Stimulus materials consisted of color pictures of both American and British birds pasted on white 4" × 4" cardboard cards (which were subsequently laminated). Pictures were clipped from the *Peterson Guide* and the *Hamlyn Guide* respectively. In the two guides, there are realistic depictions of birds presented in natural postures and in such a way as to make distinctive features fully apparent; these pictures are not to scale. Although only a single species pertained to each card, more than one bird (e.g., a male and female, a juvenile and adult) appeared on some cards if the species in question demonstrated plumage and/or other differences related to sex, seasonality, or maturation. Such differences are graphically noted on field guide pictures, and these notations were retained on the prepared cards.

Procedure

Cards were organized into two types: *target cards* with pictures of British birds, and *array cards* with pictures of American birds. Each subject was presented with an assortment of six array cards (placed horizontally on a well-lighted table) and a target card. Subjects were asked to identify (by pointing) the one bird picture in the array of six that he or she thought most closely resembled the bird picture on the target card. The task entailed 26 target cards and 26 associated arrays of six cards and, hence, 26 similarity judgments by each subject.

When the first array was presented to a subject, he or she was informed that each card represents a single species and that when more than one bird is found on a card, this indicates that the species shows plumage and/or other differences related to sex, seasonality, or maturation. Subjects were also told that bird pictures are not to scale and, consequently, that size should not be taken into consideration when making similarity judgments. If subjects inquired as to what criteria should be used in judging, they were told that they could use any criteria they deemed appropriate (except, of course, size). No time limitations were imposed on the decision-making process.

After the 26 judgments were made, each subject was asked to identify birds (on cards) by giving their English names. Subjects interviewed in England were asked to identify a set of British birds, and subjects interviewed in the United States were asked to identify a set of American birds.

Experiment Design

The experiment was designed to determine whether or not subjects tend to judge British birds, whose names are applied to certain American birds, as being more similar perceptually to the latter than they are to any other American birds. Each target card and associated array was designed to correspond to a particular case in which a British bird name has been applied to an American bird that is not of the same species as the British bird. A discussion of three examples may help clarify the kinds of strategy used in setting up the target-arrays.

The British name thrush designates the British species *Turdus viscivorus* in the complex label mistle thrush, and the American species *Catharus minimus*, *C. ustulatus*, and *Hylocichla mustelina* in the respective constructions gray-cheeked thrush, Swainson's thrush, and wood thrush. The four British and American species belong to the family Turdidae. In addition, there is a native American exemplar of the genus *Turdus* (i.e., *T. migratorius* [American robin]) and numerous other American members of Turdidae that are not designated by the term thrush. In one target-array assortment (number 2, Table 3), British *Turdus viscivorus* serves as a target, and the associated array includes the three American species designated by thrush and other American exemplars of Turdidae, including *Turdus migratorius*, *Myadestes townsendi* (Townsend's solitaire), and *Oenanthe oenanthe* (northern wheatear). If application of the name thrush to the three American species has been based, at least in part, on the fact that the latter species of Turdidae, among other species of Turdidae, most closely resemble *Turdus viscivorus*, then most of the 34 subjects should choose one of these three American species as being most perceptually similar to the British species.

The British term woodcock designates the British species *Scolopax rusticola* and the American species *Philohela minor* in the construction American woodcock. Both species are members of the family Scolopacidae. A number of other exemplars of Scolopacidae are native to America. In one target-array (number 26, Table 3), British *Scolopax rusticola* serves as a target, and the associated array of six American species includes *Philohela minor* and five other members of Scolopacidae. Selection of the last five was based on my judgment that these species, among all American species of the family (other than *Philohela minor*), most closely resemble perceptually *Scolopax rusticola*. If application of the name woodcock to *Philohela minor* has been based, at least in part, on the fact that it, among all American exemplars of Scolopacidae, most closely resembles British *Scolopax rusticola*, then most of the 34 subjects should choose *Philohela minor* from the array of six as being most similar perceptually to the British species.

The British monomial swift denotes the British species *Apus apus* and the American species *Chaetura pelagica* in the complex label chimney swift, and both species are members of the family Apodidae. Other than *Chaetura pelagica*, no other exemplars of Apodidae occur natively in America. In target-array 25 (Table 3), British *Apus apus* serves as a target, and the associated array of six includes *Chaetura pelagica*. The other five

Table 3
Results of the similarity judgment experiment

1. British target		
song thrush (<i>Turdidae, Turdus philomelos</i>)		
American array		
American robin (<i>Turdidae, Turdus migratorius</i>):	1	(2.9%)
gray-cheeked thrush (<i>Turdidae, Catharus minimus</i>):	15	(44.1%)
Swainson's thrush (<i>Turdidae, Catharus ustulatus</i>):	13	(38.2%)
wood thrush (<i>Turdidae, Hylocichla mustelina</i>):	4	(11.8%)
Townsend's solitaire (<i>Turdidae, Myadestes townsendi</i>):	0	
northern wheatear (<i>Turdidae, Oenanthe oenanthe</i>):	1	(2.9%)
2. British target		
mistle thrush (<i>Turdidae, Turdus viscivorus</i>)		
American array		
American robin (<i>Turdidae, Turdus migratorius</i>):	8	(23.5%)
gray-cheeked thrush (<i>Turdidae, Catharus minimus</i>):	5	(14.7%)
Swainson's thrush (<i>Turdidae, Catharus ustulatus</i>):	9	(26.5%)
wood thrush (<i>Turdidae, Hylocichla mustelina</i>):	10	(29.4%)
Townsend's solitaire (<i>Turdidae, Myadestes townsendi</i>):	0	
northern wheatear (<i>Turdidae, Oenanthe oenanthe</i>):	2	(5.9%)
3. British target		
blackbird (<i>Turdidae, Turdus merula</i>)		
American array		
American robin (<i>Turdidae, Turdus migratorius</i>):	8	(23.5%)
wood thrush (<i>Turdidae, Hylocichla mustelina</i>):	3	(8.8%)
rusty blackbird (<i>Icteridae, Euphagus carolinus</i>):	12	(35.3%)
Brewer's blackbird (<i>Icteridae, Euphagus cyanocephalus</i>):	9	(26.5%)
northern wheatear (<i>Turdidae, Oenanthe oenanthe</i>):	2	(5.9%)
common grackle (<i>Icteridae, Quiscalus quisqualis</i>):	0	
4. British target		
sparrowhawk (<i>Acciptridae, Accipiter nisus</i>)		
American array		
sparrow hawk (<i>Falconidae, Falco Sparverius</i>):	0	
sharp-shinned hawk (<i>Accipitridae, Accipiter striatus</i>):	13	(38.2%)
Copper's hawk (<i>Accipitridae, Accipiter cooperii</i>):	14	(41.2%)
northern goshawk (<i>Accipitridae, Accipiter gentilis</i>):	6	(17.7%)
Swainson's hawk (<i>Accipitridae, Buteo swainsoni</i>):	1	(2.9%)
Ferruginous hawk (<i>Accipitridae, Buteo regalis</i>):	0	
5. British target		
redstart (<i>Turdidae, Phoenicurus phoenicurus</i>)		
American array		
American robin (<i>Turdidae, Turdus migratorius</i>):	4	(11.8%)
hermit thrush (<i>Turdidae, Catharus guttatus</i>):	0	
wood thrush (<i>Turdidae, Hylocichla mustelina</i>):	0	
American redstart (<i>Parulidae, Setophaga ruticilla</i>):	6	(17.7%)
eastern bluebird (<i>Turdidae, Sialia sialis</i>):	8	(23.5%)
northern wheatear (<i>Turdidae, Oenanthe oenanthe</i>):	16	(47.1%)

(continued)

Table 3
Results of the similarity judgment experiment (continued)

6. British target		
black redstart (Turdidae, <i>Phoenicurus ochruros</i>)		
American array		
American robin (Turdidae, <i>Turdus migratorius</i>):	2	(5.9%)
hermit thrush (Turdidae, <i>Catharus guttatus</i>):	0	
wood thrush (Turdidae, <i>Hylocichla mustelina</i>):	0	
American redstart (Parulidae, <i>Setophaga ruticilla</i>):	16	(47.1%)
eastern bluebird (Turdidae, <i>Sialia sialis</i>):	3	(8.8%)
northern wheatear (Turdidae, <i>Oenanthe oenanthe</i>):	13	(38.2%)
7. British target		
sedge warbler (Sylviidae, <i>Acrocephalus schoenobaenus</i>)		
American array		
ruby-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, <i>Regulus calendula</i>):	0	
golden-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, <i>Regulus satrapa</i>):	1	(2.9%)
blue-gray gnatcatcher (Sylviidae, <i>Poliophtila caerulea</i>):	0	
blackpoll warbler (Parulidae, <i>Dendroica striata</i>):	23	(67.7%)
Nashville warbler (Parulidae, <i>Vermivora ruficapilla</i>):	0	
bay-breasted warbler (Parulidae, <i>Dendroica castanea</i>):	10	(29.4%)
8. British target		
grasshopper warbler (Sylviidae, <i>Locustella naevia</i>)		
American array		
ruby-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, <i>Regulus calendula</i>):	0	
golden-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, <i>Regulus satrapa</i>):	0	
blue-gray gnatcatcher (Sylviidae, <i>Poliophtila caerulea</i>):	0	
blackpoll warbler (Parulidae, <i>Dendroica striata</i>):	28	(82.4%)
Nashville warbler (Parulidae, <i>Vermivora ruficapilla</i>):	0	
bay-breasted warbler (Parulidae, <i>Dendroica castanea</i>):	6	(17.7%)
9. British target		
Cetti's warbler (Sylviidae, <i>Cettia cetti</i>)		
American array		
ruby-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, <i>Regulus calendula</i>):	0	
golden-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, <i>Regulus satrapa</i>):	0	
blue-gray gnatcatcher (Sylviidae, <i>Poliophtila caerulea</i>):	1	(2.9%)
blackpoll warbler (Parulidae, <i>Dendroica striata</i>):	8	(23.5%)
Tennessee warbler (Parulidae, <i>Vermivora peregrina</i>):	22	(64.7%)
Nashville warbler (Parulidae, <i>Vermivora ruficapilla</i>):	3	(8.8%)
10. British target		
reed warbler (Sylviidae, <i>Acrocephalus scirpaceus</i>)		
American array		
ruby-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, <i>Regulus calendula</i>):	1	(2.9%)
golden-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, <i>Regulus satrapa</i>):	0	
blue-gray gnatcatcher (Sylviidae, <i>Poliophtila caerulea</i>):	1	(2.9%)
blackpoll warbler (Parulidae, <i>Dendroica striata</i>):	7	(20.6%)
Tennessee warbler (Parulidae, <i>Vermivora peregrina</i>):	22	(64.7%)
bay-breasted warbler (Parulidae, <i>Dendroica castanea</i>):	3	(8.8%)
11. British target		
pied flycatcher (Muscicapidae, <i>Ficedula hypoleuca</i>)		

- American array**
 Townsend's solitaire (Turdidae, *Myadestes townsendi*): 6 (17.7%)
 ruby-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, *Regulus calendula*): 6 (17.7%)
 least flycatcher (Tyrannidae, *Empidonax minimus*): 13 (38.2%)
 Acadian flycatcher (Tyrannidae, *Empidonax verescens*): 3 (8.8%)
 willow flycatcher (Tyrannidae, *Empidonax traillii*): 6 (17.7%)
 pine warbler (Parulidae, *Dendroica pinus*): 0
12. **British target**
 spotted flycatcher (Muscicapidae, *Muscicapa striata*)
American array
 townsend's solitaire (Turdidae, *Myadestes townsendi*): 7 (20.6%)
 ruby-crowned kinglet (Sylviidae, *Regulus calendula*): 0
 least flycatcher (Tyrannidae, *Empidonax minimus*): 1 (2.9%)
 Acadian flycatcher (Tyrannidae, *Empidonax verescens*): 15 (44.1%)
 willow flycatcher (Tyrannidae, *Empidonax traillii*): 8 (23.5%)
 pine warbler (Parulidae, *Dendroica pinus*): 3 (8.8%)
13. **British target**
 golden oriole (Oriolidae, *Oriolus oriolus*)
American array
 American robin (Turdidae, *Turdus migratorius*): 1 (2.9%)
 yellow-headed blackbird (Icteridae, *Xanthocephalus x.*): 13 (38.2%)
 spotted oriole (Icteridae, *Icterus pectoralis*): 1 (2.9%)
 orchard oriole (Icteridae, *Icterus spurius*): 8 (23.5%)
 northern oriole (Icteridae, *Icterus galbula*): 7 (20.6%)
 eastern meadowlark (Icteridae, *Sturnella magna*): 4 (11.7%)
14. **British target**
 house sparrow (Passeridae, *Passer domesticus*)
American array
 Harris' sparrow (Fringillidae, *Zonotrichia querula*): 10 (29.4%)
 chipping sparrow (Fringillidae, *Spizella passerina*): 10 (29.4%)
 swamp sparrow (Fringillidae, *Melospiza georgiana*): 4 (11.7%)
 dickcissel (Fringillidae, *Spiza americana*): 5 (14.7%)
 Smith's longspur (Fringillidae, *Calcarius lapponicus*): 3 (8.8%)
 pine siskin (Fringillidae, *Carduelis pinus*): 2 (5.9%)
15. **British target**
 tree sparrow (Passeridae, *Passer montanus*)
American array
 Harris' sparrow (Fringillidae, *Zonotrichia querula*): 13 (38.2%)
 chipping sparrow (Fringillidae, *Spizella passerina*): 9 (26.5%)
 swamp sparrow (Fringillidae, *Melospiza georgiana*): 3 (8.8%)
 dickcissel (Fringillidae, *Spiza americana*): 5 (14.7%)
 Smith's longspur (Fringillidae, *Calcarius lapponicus*): 4 (11.8%)
 pine siskin (Fringillidae, *Carduelis pinus*): 0
16. **British target**
 cuckoo (Cuculidae, *Cuculus canorus*)
American array
 yellow-billed cuckoo (Cuculidae, *Coccyzus americanus*): 9 (26.5%)
 black-billed cuckoo (Cuculidae, *C. erythrophthalmus*): 13 (38.2%)
 greater roadrunner (Cuculidae, *Geococcyx Californianus*): 4 (11.8%)

(continued)

Table 3
Results of the similarity judgment experiment (continued)

	Mississippi kite (Accipitridae, <i>Ictinia mississippiensis</i>):	3 (8.8%)
	snail kite (Accipitridae, <i>Rostrhamus sociabilis</i>):	4 (11.8%)
	Swainson's hawk (Accipitridae, <i>Buteo swainsoni</i>):	1 (2.9%)
17.	British target	
	jay (Corvidae, <i>Garrulus glandarius</i>)	
	American array	
	American robin (Turdidae, <i>Turdus migratorius</i>):	6 (17.7%)
	eastern bluebird (Turdidae, <i>Sialia sialis</i>):	5 (14.7%)
	blue jay (Corvidae, <i>Cyanocitta cristata</i>):	2 (5.9%)
	scrub jay (Corvidae, <i>Aphelocoma coerulescens</i>):	2 (5.9%)
	gray jay (Corvidae, <i>Perisoreus canadensis</i>):	18 (52.9%)
	American crow (Corvidae, <i>Corvus brachyrhynchos</i>):	1 (2.9%)
18.	British target	
	kingfisher (Alcedinidae, <i>Alcedo atthis</i>)	
	American array	
	eastern bluebird (Turdidae, <i>Sialia sialis</i>):	1 (2.9%)
	common grackle (Icteridae, <i>Quiscalus quisqualis</i>):	0
	belted kingfisher (Alcedinidae, <i>Megasceryle alcyon</i>):	22 (64.7%)
	pileated woodpecker (Picidae, <i>Dryocopus pileatus</i>):	1 (2.9%)
	common flicker (Picidae, <i>Colaptes auratus</i>):	8 (23.5%)
	downy woodpecker (Picidae, <i>Picoides pubescens</i>):	2 (5.9%)
19.	British target	
	red kite (Accipitridae, <i>Milvus milvus</i>)	
	American array	
	sparrow hawk (Falconidae, <i>Falco sparverius</i>):	2 (5.9%)
	sharp-shinned hawk (Accipitridae, <i>Accipiter striatus</i>):	4 (11.8%)
	Mississippi kite (Accipitridae, <i>Ictinia m.</i>):	1 (2.9%)
	white-tailed kite (Accipitridae, <i>Elanus leucurus</i>):	0
	snail kite (Accipitridae, <i>Rostrhamus sociabilis</i>):	1 (2.9%)
	Swainson's hawk (Accipitridae, <i>Buteo swainsoni</i>):	26 (76.5%)
20.	British target	
	woodlark (Alaudidae, <i>Lullula arborea</i>)	
	American array	
	gray-cheeked thrush (Turdidae, <i>Catharus minimus</i>):	1 (2.9%)
	Swainson's thrush (Turdidae, <i>Catharus ustulatus</i>):	4 (11.8%)
	hermit thrush (Turdidae, <i>Catharus guttatus</i>):	3 (8.8%)
	bobolink (Icteridae, <i>Bolichonyx oryzivorus</i>):	1 (2.9%)
	eastern meadowlark (Icteridae, <i>Sturnella magna</i>):	5 (14.7%)
	horned lark (Alaudidae, <i>Eremophila alpestris</i>):	20 (58.8%)
21.	British target	
	skylark (Alaudidae, <i>Alauda arvensis</i>)	
	American array	
	gray-cheeked thrush (Turdidae, <i>Catharus minimus</i>):	4 (11.8%)
	Swainson's thrush (Turdidae, <i>Catharus ustulatus</i>):	4 (11.8%)
	hermit thrush (Turdidae, <i>Catharus guttatus</i>):	3 (8.8%)

- | | | |
|-----|--|-------------|
| | bobolink (Icteridae, <i>Bolichonyx oryzivorus</i>): | 2 (5.9%) |
| | eastern meadowlark (Icteridae, <i>Sturnella magna</i>): | 3 (8.8%) |
| | horned lark (Alaudidae, <i>Eremophila alpestris</i>): | 18 (52.9%) |
| 22. | British target | |
| | great spotted woodpecker (Picidae, <i>Dendrocopos major</i>) | |
| | American array | |
| | scissor-tailed flycatcher (Tyrannidae, <i>Muscivora f.</i>): | 0 |
| | olive-sided flycatcher (Tyrannidae, <i>Nuttallornis b.</i>): | 0 |
| | belted kingfisher (Alcedinidae, <i>Megaceryle alcyon</i>): | 2 (5.9%) |
| | red-headed woodpecker (Picidae, <i>Melanerpes e.</i>): | 10 (29.4%) |
| | pileated woodpecker (Picidae, <i>Dryocopus pileatus</i>): | 7 (20.6%) |
| | downy woodpecker (Picidae, <i>Picoides pubescens</i>): | 15 (44.1%) |
| 23. | British target | |
| | robin (Turdidae, <i>Erithacus rubecula</i>) | |
| | American array | |
| | American robin (Turdidae, <i>Turdus migratorius</i>): | 2 (5.9%) |
| | Swainson's thrush (Turdidae, <i>Catharus ustulatus</i>): | 1 (2.9%) |
| | wood thrush (Turdidae, <i>Hylocichla mustelina</i>): | 0 |
| | eastern bluebird (Turdidae, <i>Sialia sialis</i>): | 16 (47.1%) |
| | northern wheatear (Turdidae, <i>Oenanthe oenanthe</i>): | 6 (17.7%) |
| | veery (Turdidae, <i>Catharus fuscescens</i>): | 9 (26.5%) |
| 24. | British target | |
| | spoonbill (Threskiornithidae, <i>Platalea leucorodia</i>) | |
| | American array | |
| | roseate spoonbill (Threskiornithidae, <i>Ajaia ajaja</i>): | 34 (100.0%) |
| | glossy ibis (Threskiornithidae, <i>Plegadis falcinellus</i>): | 0 |
| | white ibis (Threskiornithidae, <i>Eudocimus albus</i>): | 0 |
| | American woodcock (Scolopacidae, <i>Philohela minor</i>): | 0 |
| | common snipe (Scolopacidae, <i>Capella gallinago</i>): | 0 |
| | long-billed dowitcher (Scolopacidae, <i>Limnodromus s.</i>): | 0 |
| 25. | British target | |
| | swift (Apodidae, <i>Apus apus</i>) | |
| | American array | |
| | bank swallow (Hirundinidae, <i>Riparia riparia</i>): | 9 (26.5%) |
| | purple martin (Hirundinidae, <i>Progne subis</i>): | 5 (14.7%) |
| | common grackle (Icteridae, <i>Quiscalus quisqualis</i>): | 0 |
| | northern junco (Fringillidae, <i>Junco hyemalis</i>): | 0 |
| | white-tailed kite (Accipitridae, <i>Elanus leucurus</i>): | 2 (5.9%) |
| | chimney swift (Apodidae, <i>Chaetura pelagica</i>): | 17 (50.0%) |
| 26. | British target | |
| | woodcock (Scolopacidae, <i>Scolopax rusticola</i>) | |
| | American array | |
| | American woodcock (Scolopacidae, <i>Philohela minor</i>): | 30 (88.2%) |
| | common snipe (Scolopacidae, <i>Capella gallinago</i>): | 3 (8.8%) |
| | long-billed dowitcher (Scolopacidae, <i>Limnodromus s.</i>): | 0 |
| | red knot (Scolopacidae, <i>Calidris canutus</i>): | 0 |
| | marbled godwit (Scolopacidae, <i>Limosa fedoa</i>): | 0 |
| | willet (Scolopacidae, <i>Cataptrophorus semipalmatus</i>): | 1 (2.9%) |

members of the array are those American birds, among all American birds, I have judged to most closely resemble perceptually *Apus apus*. These include *Riparia riparia* (bank swallow), *Progne subis* (purple martin), *Quiscalus quisqualis* (common grackle), *Junco hyemalis* (northern junco), and *Elanus leucurus* (white-tailed kite). None of the last-named species, of course, belong to the family Apodidae. If application of the name swift to *Chaetura pelagica* has been based, at least in part, on the fact that it, among all American birds, most closely resembles British *Apus apus*, then most of the 34 subjects should choose *Chaetura pelagica* from the array as being most similar perceptually to the British species.

As noted above, after each subject made all 26 similarity judgments, he or she was asked to identify birds by giving their English names. This task was undertaken to identify those subjects that might have specialist knowledge of birds, for example, persons who are devoted bird-watchers or who have studied ornithology. None of the subjects performed in a manner indicating that they had specialist knowledge.

Results and Discussion

Table 3 reports the results of the similarity judgment experiment. It presents each of the 26 target-arrays in the order in which they were presented to subjects, giving English names for British and American birds and respective family, genus, and species affiliations. Table 3 also indicates the number of subjects choosing an American species from an array as being most similar to the target British species and the percentage of subjects choosing a particular American species. (Percentages do not add up to 100% due to rounding.)

It should be noted that no differences in similarity judgments were detected that correlate with subject age, sex, or country of orientation.

Findings reported in Table 3 indicate that subjects strongly tend to choose those British and American birds as being most similar that are also nomenclaturally equated.⁷ For the most part, such is the case even in instances in which terms for British birds are applied to American birds that are not among those American species most closely affiliated with British species in scientific taxonomy. For example, the term thrush designates (in complex labels) two species of the genus *Turdus* in Britain and a number of other members of the family Turdidae in America. As discussed above, this is an exception to naming patterns, since a species of the genus *Turdus* (i.e., *T. migratorius* [American robin]) occurs natively in America but is not denoted by thrush. Target-array 1 of Table 3, for example, shows that British song thrush is matched by nearly all subjects (94.1%) with American birds denoted by thrush, whereas it is matched with *T. migratorius* by only 2.9%. For similar examples, see target-arrays 2, 3, 6, 7, 8, 9, and 10 in Table 3.⁸

That folk judgments of perceptual similarity do not always accord closely with scientific taxonomy perhaps reflects the fact that biological evolution sometimes leads to the development of similar (if only superficially so) features in two or more species that are not particularly closely related phylogenetically. Instances of parallel evolution are not uncom-

mon in nature, for example, the convergence of cetaceans and fish. In many cases, such taxonomically dissimilar species are incorporated into the same folk biological class. For example, birds and bats are often denoted by the same general term (Brown 1984), and, as Hunn (1987) has called to our attention, those plants that are found across languages to be consistently lumped together in folk categories comparable to English tree are in fact taxonomically quite diverse. The perceptual similarity of trees, in Hunn's words, is the result of "evolutionary convergence in response to common adaptive challenges constrained by laws of form" (1987:148). Similarly, the perceptual congruence of British and American warblers, for example, is probably linked to convergent evolution.

Conclusion

The similarity judgment experiment shows that folk observers strongly tend to judge British birds, whose names are applied to certain American birds, as being more similar perceptually to the latter than they are to any other birds that occur natively in America. This accords with the finding that for the most part British bird names have been applied to those birds native to eastern and central North America among all birds of this region that are most closely related to the designated British birds in scientific taxonomy.

However, there are instances in which this is not so, that is, where a term for a British species X has been applied to an American species Y, even though there is an American species Z that is scientifically closer to the British species. The results of the similarity judgment experiment, involving subjects who do not have specialist knowledge of birds, indicate that these exceptional naming cases are not really deviant. American birds so nomenclaturally linked to British birds are in fact judged by subjects to be perceptually more similar to the British birds than are any other American birds, including those that are taxonomically closest to the British birds. These results indicate that although folk perceptions of biological similarity and scientific classification typically accord closely, they are not perfectly isomorphic. They further suggest that folk perception of similarity is a better predictor of the detailed nature of folk systems of biological classification than is scientific taxonomy.

Notes

Acknowledgments. Ian D. W. Stratford helped to arrange experiment sessions with subjects in Britain, and for this I am very grateful. Thanks also go to Eugene Anderson, Pamela Brown, John Harris, Amadeo Rea, Louise Schoenhals, and William E. Southern for reading and commenting on various drafts of this article. Anonymous referees for this journal and its editor also provided useful comments. I am especially grateful to Kenneth C. Parkes, Senior Curator of Birds at the Carnegie Museum of Natural History, for an exceptionally detailed review. Since I am a featherweight in the area of ornithology, I accept all responsibility for errors of fact or interpretation contained herein.

1. If most of the names in field guides have been coined by compilers of checklists, then these names do not reflect folk usage. However, English names on checklists are mostly folk in origin, having been selected from pools of competing regional folk names for birds (e.g., see the discussion of "vernacular" names in the first edition of the *Check-List of North American Birds* prepared by the AOU [1886:69]). Although specific criteria for selecting such names have possibly differed somewhat from one checklist commission to another, it is likely that folk names so chosen typically are (or have been) in relatively wide use in the range in which species to which they refer occur (e.g., see the discussion in the third edition of the AOU's *Check-List* [1910:13]).

Parkes (pers. com. 1990) informs me that bird names in the *Hamlyn Guide* are mostly traditional British names, whereas those in the *Peterson Guide* are all official "book" names decreed by the AOU.

2. Although nearly all field guide names for American birds are complex labels, many, if not most, such names for British birds are monomials. Parkes (pers. com. 1990) notes that the heavy use of monomial names in Britain is because the British avifauna is very small, there being relatively few closely related birds whose monomial names might lead to confusion.

3. One reason for not treating complex names is that complex labels for British birds have only rarely been applied as whole nomenclatural units to American birds, usually only when pertinent American birds are of the same species as their British counterparts. On the other hand, many monomials and base names for British birds have been applied to American birds (e.g., British jay [*Garrulus glandarius*] to *Cyanocitta cristata* in the American complex construction blue jay, and British oriole in the complex label golden oriole [*Oriolus oriolus*] to *Icterus galbula* in the American construction Baltimore oriole).

4. For example, in the third edition of the AOU checklist (1910), whimbrel is given for *N. phaeopus*, and Hudsonian curlew is given for *N. hudsonicus*, the former species identified as an accidental to America from Eurasia, and the latter identified as a native American species. In the fifth edition (1957), these Eurasian and American birds are identified as being subspecies of the same species and are given the single name whimbrel, which, of course, was originally associated only with the Eurasian variety. Given this, it seems more likely that the base name curlew is more reflective of American folk usage than is whimbrel. Parkes (pers. com. 1990) has supplied me with evidence suggesting that this interpretation is essentially correct. He notes that the name Hudsonian curlew was bestowed by Latham, the same person who gave it the scientific name *Numenius hudsonicus*. However, he goes on to note that curlew is included among true folk names for the whimbrel on the American side, as in "Jack Curlew" and "Small Curlew."

5. A *Dictionary of English and Folk-Names of British Birds* (Swann 1913) and the *Oxford English Dictionary* were consulted to validate the British origin of bird names on the truncated list. Of the 88 common names on the truncated list, only one, oystercatcher, originally denoted an American bird and subsequently was applied to a British bird. Swann (1913:173) notes that the term was first used by Catesby (1731-43) "for the American species, which he (probably erroneously) believed to feed on oysters, and was adopted in this country [England]."

6. The detailed natures of these exceptions are as follows: (1) The term thrush occurs in British complex labels for two species of *Turdus*. The same term is used in American constructions for species of the genera *Ixoreus*, *Catharus*, and *Hylo-*

cichla, all of which pertain to the same family as *Turdus* (i.e., Turdidae). There is, however, an American species of the *Turdus* genus (i.e., *Turdus migratorius* [American robin]) to which the term thrush has not been applied. (2) The species *Lagopus lagopus* occurs natively in both Britain and America. In Britain it is called red grouse, and in America it is called willow ptarmigan. The term grouse is used in American labels for other species that do not occur in Britain. All species designated by grouse in Britain and America belong to the same family (i.e., Tetraonidae). (3) The species *Riparia riparia* occurs natively in both Britain and America. In Britain it is called sand martin, and in America it is called bank swallow. The term martin is a constituent of an American label (purple martin) for a species not found in Britain. All species designated by martin in Britain and America belong to the same family. (4) In Britain the term blackbird designates *Turdus merula*, which is a member of the Turdidae family. The single American exemplar of the genus *Turdus*, *T. migratorius*, is not denoted by blackbird, but, rather, is designated American robin. However, blackbird is a base constituent of American complex labels for several species belonging to the family Icteridae. Turdidae and Icteridae belong to the same order (i.e., Passeriformes). (5) In Britain, sparrowhawk denotes *Accipiter nisus*, which is a member of the family Accipitridae. Three species of the genus *Accipiter* are native to America, and none are labeled by sparrowhawk either as a monomial or as a base name in complex labels. However, sparrowhawk is used in America as a label (written sparrow hawk) for *Falco sparverius* (recently renamed American kestrel), a member of the family Falconidae. Accipitridae and Falconidae belong to the same order (i.e., Falconiformes). (6) In Britain, redstart is a monomial for one species of the genus *Phoenicurus* (family Turdidae) and occurs as a base name in a complex label for a second species of the same genus. Although exemplars of the genus *Phoenicurus* do not occur in America, exemplars of the family Turdidae do, and they are not designated by redstart. However, redstart is used as a constituent of an American complex label that denotes *Setophaga ruticilla*, a member of the family Parulidae. Turdidae and Parulidae belong to the order Passeriformes. (7) In Britain, warbler is a constituent of a number of complex terms that label species of the families Sylviidae and Turdidae. Three species of the Sylviidae family and a number of species of the Turdidae occur in central and eastern North America and are not designated warbler. However, the term is used in American complex labels for many species of the family Parulidae. Sylviidae, Turdidae, and Parulidae belong to the same order (i.e., Passeriformes).

7. There are, however, a few discordant results (see target-arrays 4, 5, 19, and 23, Table 3). All of these may be explained as artifacts of the peculiarities of stimulus materials used in the experiment. In target-array 4, British sparrowhawk is matched most frequently with American Cooper's hawk (41.2%) rather than with American sparrow hawk. (In fact, none of the subjects matched sparrowhawk and sparrow hawk.) This may be explained, in part, by the use of bird pictures that were not to scale. Thus, subjects were not aware that British sparrowhawk and American sparrow hawk are among the very smallest of hawks, eagles, and falcons that natively occur in Britain and America. Presumably, if pictures were to scale, subjects would have matched these two birds considerably more frequently.

In target-array 5, British redstart is matched most frequently with American northern wheatear (47.1%) rather than with American redstart (11.8%). (However, in target-array 6, British black redstart is matched most frequently with American redstart.) This unexpected result may also be explained in part by the fact that the pictures were not to scale. British redstart and American redstart are

approximately the same size (around 5½ inches). However, that British *Phoenicurus phoenicurus* (redstart) and American *Setophaga ruticilla* (American redstart) share the same English name may be linked more to behavioral similarity than to perceptual similarity. Both the English and American species are noted for their almost constant movement and are frequently observed fanning or flickering their brightly colored tails. In addition, both birds catch flying insects on the wing.

In target-array 19, British red kite is matched more frequently with American Swainson's hawk (76.5%) than with American kites (Mississippi kite [2.9%] and white-tailed kite [0.0%]). In all instances in which a field guide gives two pictures of a single species, one where the bird is perched and one where it is in flight, I chose to use the former picture. However, in-flight pictures of birds more completely reveal the shape of tails than do perched pictures. Both British and American kites have in common relatively long tails that are forked, some considerably more so than others among American species. No other raptors on either side of the Atlantic demonstrate forked tails. In addition, British and American kites are behaviorally similar as most species are exceptionally buoyant fliers that effortlessly soar and glide.

In target-array 23, British robin is more frequently matched with American eastern bluebird (47.1%) than with American robin (5.9%). The British and American robins are perceptually quite different birds, having only a rust-colored breast in common (a feature these birds also share with eastern bluebird). These two species are, however, in an important respect behaviorally similar. Both show a particularly confiding behavior toward humans and are commonly observed in especially anthropogenic environments, such as gardens (in Britain) and yards (in America). Presumably, a shared perceptual feature (rusty breast) together with a shared behavioral feature have served to strongly motivate application of the British word robin to the American species.

8. However, two of the seven exceptions, involving the British names martin and grouse, cannot be similarly explained away. (1) The species *Riparia riparia* (Hirundinidae), denoted by martin in Britain, occurs natively in both Britain and America. However, in America, martin designates species of Hirundinidae, but these do not include *R. riparia*. The *riparia* species is called bank swallow in America. (2) The species *Lagopus lagopus* (Tetraonidae), denoted by grouse in Britain, occurs natively in both Britain and America. However, in America, grouse designates bird species of the family Tetraonidae that do not include *L. lagopus*. The *lagopus* species is named willow ptarmigan in America. Obviously, in these two instances, the British term is not applied to the American bird that most closely resembles the British bird it names.

The first of these examples is explained by an interesting difference between British and American conceptualizations of birds belonging to the family Hirundinidae. In Britain, long-tailed members of the family are swallows, whereas short-tailed ones are martins. In contrast, in America, small members of the family are swallows, and large ones are martins (Eugene Anderson and Kenneth C. Parkes, pers. com. 1990). Because *Riparia riparia* is a small, short-tailed member of Hirundinidae, in Britain it is designated by martin and in America by swallow.

The second example is not so easily explained. What seems to have happened is that the term ptarmigan, which, as a monomial, denotes *Lagopus mutus* in Britain, became applied to the same species in America in the complex label rock ptarmigan. Subsequently, in North America (in general), application of ptarmigan was expanded to other members of the genus *Lagopus*, including *L. lagopus*.

In Britain, the name grouse denotes not only the *lagopus* species, but also members of the family Tetraonidae belonging to the genera *Bonasa* and *Tetrao*. In my judgment, *L. mutus* and *L. lagopus* are more perceptually similar to each other than either is to exemplars of any other genera of Tetraonidae, including *Bonasa* and *Tetrao*. Thus, application of British ptarmigan to the American species *L. Lagopus* may constitute an Anglo-American adjustment of British nomenclature to conform more closely with observed similarities and differences.

References Cited

American Ornithologists' Union

1886 Check-List of North American Birds. 1st ed. New York: American Ornithologists' Union.

1910 Check-List of North American Birds. 3d ed. New York: American Ornithologists' Union.

1957 Check-List of North American Birds. 5th ed. New York: American Ornithologists' Union.

Atran, Scott

1990 Cognitive Foundations of Natural History: Towards an Anthropology of Science. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Berlin, Brent

1990 The Chicken and the Egg-Head Revisited: Further Evidence for the Intellectualist Bases of Ethnobiological Classification. In *Ethnobiology: Implications and Applications*, Vol. 1, Proceedings of the First International Congress of Ethnobiology (Belém, 1988). Darrell A. Posey, William Leslie Overal, Charles R. Clement, Mark J. Plotkin, Elaine Elisabetsky, Clarice Novaes da Mota, and José Flávio Pessôa de Barros, eds. Pp. 19–33. Belém, Brazil: Museu Paraense Emílio Goeldi.

Brown, Cecil H.

1984 Language and Living Things: Uniformities in Folk Classification and Naming. New Brunswick, N.J.: Rutgers University Press.

Bruun, Bertel, Hakan Delin, and Lars Svensson

1986 The Hamlyn Guide to Birds of Britain and Europe. London: The Hamlyn Publishing Group.

Casagrande, Joseph B.

1954a Comanche Linguistic Acculturation 1. *International Journal of American Linguistics* 20(2):140–151.

1954b Comanche Linguistic Acculturation 2. *International Journal of American Linguistics* 20(3):217–237.

1955 Comanche Linguistic Acculturation 3. *International Journal of American Linguistics* 21(1):8–25.

Catesby, Mark

1731–43 The Natural History of Carolina, Florida, and the Bahama Islands. London.

Choate, Ernest A.

1973 The Dictionary of American Bird Names. Boston: Gambit.

Gruson, Edward W.

1972 Words for Birds: A Lexicon of North American Birds with Biographical Notes. New York: Quadrangle Books.

Hunn, Eugene S.

1982 The Utilitarian Factor in Folk Biological Classification. *American Anthropologist* 84(4):830–847.

- 1987 Science and Common Sense: A Reply to Atran. *American Anthropologist* 89(1):146-148.
- Jackson, Christine Elisabeth
- 1968 *British Names of Birds*. London: Witherby & Co.
- Parkes, Kenneth C.
- 1975 Special Review. *The Auk* 92(3):818-830.
- Peterson, Roger Tory
- 1980 *A Field Guide to the Birds of Eastern and Central North America*. 4th ed. Boston: Houghton Mifflin.
- Swann, Harry Kirke
- 1913 *A Dictionary of English and Folk-Names of British Birds*. London: Witherby & Co.
- Voegelin, Charles F., and Dell H. Hymes
- 1953 A Sample of North American Indian Dictionaries with Reference to Acculturation. *Proceedings of the American Philosophical Society* 97(5):634-644.